

Shannon Tanoto’s Final Project

INTRODUCTION

The aim of this project is to build a machine learning model that predicts the probability that a home team is going to win an NFL (National Football League) game given a current game state (features). A game state is described by statistics of a team’s field position (yards to go, yards to endzone, yards gained), game’s time remaining (quarter, time_remaining), and the score difference(home score, away score). Another key feature is the offensive and defensive team strengths based on each team’s historical performance (offense strength and defense strength). All of these variables capture both the immediate context of the game and the relative strengths of the teams, and are leveraged by the model to predict the win probability (model’s output). A binary target outcome, whether the home team wins the game, contributes to the model training as well. The model is trained on past data to predict the win probability at any point of time in the game, which can be valuable for fans, analysts, coaches or strategists seeking to better understand the game dynamics, evaluate team performance, and support real-time decision making in sports analytics.

METHODS

Data Collection

The dataset was extracted using the ESPN Public API (<https://github.com/pseudo-r/Public-ESPN-API>). To start, the API was used to collect all NFL games from the 2022 and 2023 season, providing two datasets containing 336 games and 349 games respetively with 5 variables:

Variable	Description	Type
id	Game ID number	String
name	Game’s name (teams playing)	String
home_team	Home team’s ID number	String
away_team	Away team’s ID number	String
date	Game’s date	String

Table 1: Games Dataset

Next, a different endpoint of the ESPN Public API was used to retrieve play-by-play data that occurred in each game of the 2022 and 2023 season. This produced two dataset of 57,547 observations (or single plays) and 52,703 observations respectively with 13 variables:

Variable	Description	Type
gid	Game ID number	Integer
pid	Play ID number	Integer
play_action	Description of the play	String
quarter	Quarter in which the play occurred	Integer
time_remaining	Time remaining in the current quarter (seconds)	Float
down	Down in which the play occurred	Integer
yards_to_go	Yards needed to get a first down	Integer
yardsToEndzone	Yards needed to reach the endzone	Integer
yards_gained	Yards gained on the play	Integer
home_score	Home team’s current score	Integer
away_score	Away team’s current score	Integer
offense_team	Offensive team ID	Float
defense_team	Defensive team ID	Float

Table 2: Plays Dataset

Data Cleaning & Wrangling

First, notice that games dataset’s column “id” corresponds to the plays dataset’s column “gid”. However, they have different variable types, so “gid” was converted to a string, matching “id”. Since only the plays dataset was downloaded and may not align with potential API updates for the games dataset, we filter out any games that are not in the plays dataset using the “gid” set.

Next, based on the summary table of missing data, we observe that most variables in the plays dataset don’t have any missing values. The only variables with missing values are offense_team and defense_team.

Further investigation of these observations shows that these values are missing when the play occurred at the start or end of a quarter or game (indicated by variable play_action). Since these plays don’t represent standard plays, they are not relevant for our model and thus are filtered out.

Moreover, after examining the summary statistics table, we see that all variables are within the reasonable ranges:

- home_score and away_score are positive (minimums are 0)
- yards_gained has a range within -109 and 109 yards, which is the maximum length of a football field including the end zones
- time_remaining between 0 and 900 which is 4 quarters of 15 minutes
- yards_to_go and yardsToEndzone are positive and under 100 yards, reflecting the maximum possible distance of a football field

However, the summary statistics table also show a minimum values of 0 for variables: down and quarter. After examining these observations, we see that these plays corresponds to kickoffs or start of a game. Because these events don’t represent standard play, we keep entries with quarter 1,2,3,4 and 5 (representing the 4 quarters of a standard NFL game and overtime), as well as downs 1,2,3,4 (representing offensive downs)

After filtering out irrelevant data, our datasets contains 52,410 and 48,376 meaningful plays for the training (2022) and testing (2023) datasets respectively.

Feature Engineering

The target outcome for this model is a binary indicator of whether the home team wins the game. Since the dataset is rows of all plays played in the all games, we first grouped the plays per game, and find the maximum score for both the home and away team for each game. If the home team has the higher maximum score, then the tagret outcome variable, “home_wins” is set to 1 indicating tha tthe home team won. This target outcome will then be merged into the original plays dataset so that each row (or play) is assinged the final game outcome.

In order to better represent the state of the game, 4 additional variables were engineered from existing data:

- gametime_remaining: Time remaining in the whole game (instead of time remaining in the quarter as represented as the variable time_remaning) (in seconds)
 - **gametime_remaining** = ((4 - quarters) x 900) + time_remaining
 - where each quarter consists of 900 seconds (= 15 minutes) and for quarter = 5 (indicating overtime plays), this value is set to NULL
- score_diff: Score Difference between home and away team (relative to the home team)
 - **score_diff** = home_score - away_score
 - the difference between the home team’s score and away team’s score at that time of play
- offense_strength: the strength of the team currently on offense
 - This value was calculated by the sum of wins / sum of games played per team
- defense_strength: the strength of the team currently on defense
 - This value was calculated by the sum of wins / sum of games played per team

Together, these engineered varaibles provide more context of the game, improving the model’s training to estimate the win probability.

Variable	Description	Type
gid	Game ID	String
pid	Play ID	Integer
play_action	Description of play	String
quarter	Quarter of play	Integer
time_remaining	Time remaining in quarter (seconds)	Float
down	Current down	Integer
yards_to_go	Yards to first down	Integer
yardsToEndzone	Distance to endzone	Integer

Variable	Description	Type
yards_gained	Yards gained on play	Integer
home_score	Home team score	Integer
away_score	Away team score	Integer
offense_team	Offensive team ID	String
defense_team	Defensive team ID	String
gametime_remaining	Time remaining in game (seconds)	Float
score_diff	Home score — away score	Integer
home_wins	Target variable (1 = home win, 0 = loss)	Integer
offense_strength	Offensive team win rate	Float
defense_strength	Defensive team win rate	Float

Table 3: Final Dataset

EDA

Statistics Summary of Key Variables

The summary table below shows key game statistics of 52,410 plays from the 2022 NFL season (train dataset) with each observation representing a single play including variables describing the game situation. The table confirms that all variables fall within expected ranges of a realistic game state.

	quarter	time_re- main- ing	down	yards_to- go	yard- sToEnd- zone	yards_gained	home_score	away_score	game- time_re- main- ing	score_diff	home_wins	of- ense_strength	de- fense_strength
mean	2.59	407.24	2.02	8.41	51.36	5.77	11.72	10.17	1696.95	1.55	0.559	0.501	0.499
std	1.13	275.30	1.01	4.12	24.42	10.43	9.67	9.16	1050.37	9.633	0.497	0.1449	0.1451
min	1	0	1	1	0	-45	0	0	0	-37	0	0	0
max	5	900	4	89	99	99	54	51	3600	47	1	1	1

Table 4: Summary Table of Key Variables

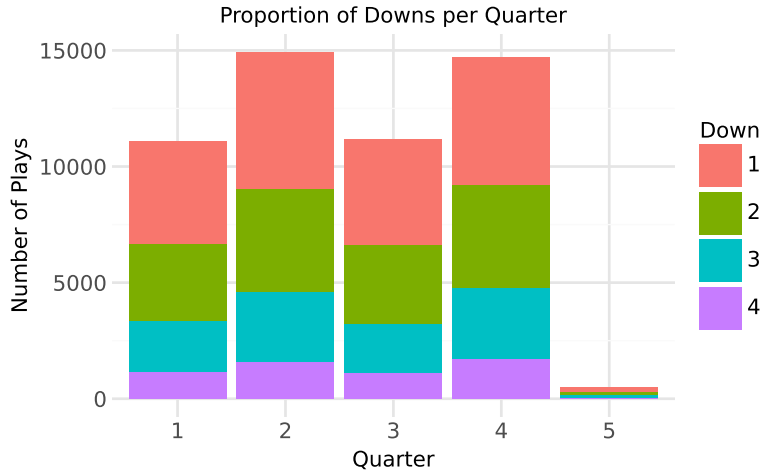


Figure 1: Proportion of Downs per Quarter

This stacked bar graph displays the number of plays as well as the proportion of downs across each quarter. We can see that there are more plays occurring in second and fourth quarter which might be because teams tend to hustle as they approach a turnover or end of the game. Besides that, first and second down occurs more frequent compared to third and fourth down which is expected as they represent the start of offensive drives. Notice how there is more fourth down played in the fourth quarter compared to other quarters suggesting increased risk-taking drives attempted by teams to get more points in the limited time left. Another thing to highlight, is the low count in plays for 5th quarter as overtime don't happen often in NFL games. Hence, these findings suggests that both downs and quarters might influence win probability and thus are added as features of the model.

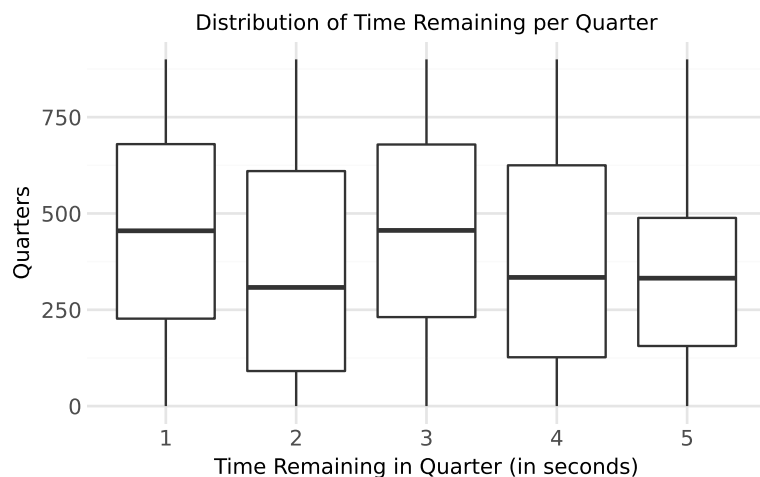


Figure 2: Distribution of Time Remaining per Quarter

The distribution of time remaining within each quarter is balanced with plays occurring throughout the duration of the game. This suggests that plays are not are not concentrated in a certain time of the quarter and that our data is not skewed (it captures game states at all point in time of the game) . This is key for the model as it ensures that predictions can be made across all quarters of the game.

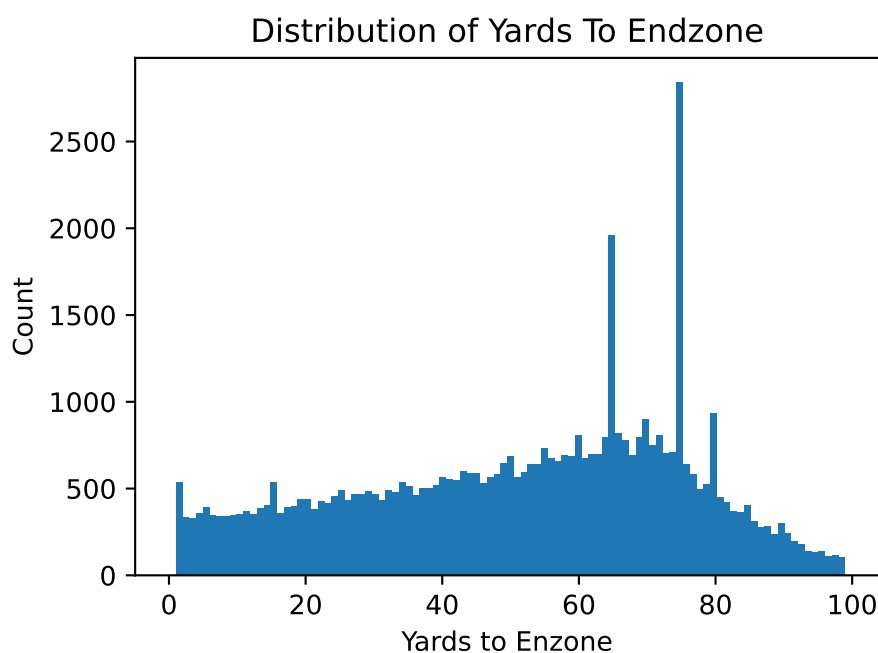


Figure 3: Distribution of Yards to Endzone

Field position values are distributed across the field with more plays occurring at approximately 75 yards away from the end zone where most drives often begin. The wide spread indicates that the dataset captures a diverse range of game situation at every yard of the field, ensuring that predictions can be made by the model across the field.

C:\Users\shnta\Desktop\JSC370_2026_Winter\.venv\Lib\site-packages\plotnine\layer.py:374: PlotnineWarning: geom_point() is deprecated. Use geom_point() instead.

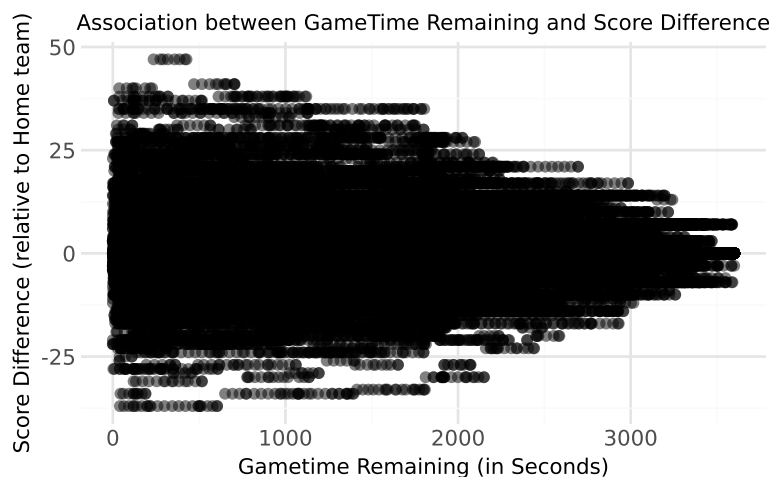


Figure 4: Association between Gametime Remaining and Score Difference The association between the score difference and game time remaining seems to have a correlation where as game time decreases (game progresses), the score differences tend to increase in magnitude, reflecting the fact that games often become more decisive towards the end.

Model Building

To search for the best model to predict the probability that the home team wins, both Random Forest classifier and the XGBoost Classifier were candidates, because:

- Random Forest Classifier: this model creates decision trees by randomly creating subsets of the 8 key variables and takes the majority vote across the trees.

- XGBoost Classifier: this model creates a weak learner and slightly improves sequentially upon predictions of the

Both approaches improves prediction accuracy for a binary target outcome, whether the team wins (indicated by `home_wins = 1`) or loses (indicated by `home_wins = 0`) and outputs the probability of a home team win.

Training and Testing

We have two datasets: - 2022 NFL games dataset which is our training dataset - 2023 NFL games dataset which is our testing dataset

The model is trained on the training set (2022 NFL games) and will be evaluated on the testing set (2023 NFL games) to evaluate its accuracy.

Hyperparameter Tuning

To improve model performance, hyperparameters were tuned on the training set using 5-fold CV with random search. The following hyperparameters samples were considered:

- Random Forest:
 - `max_features`: features per split ('sqrt', 1/3, 0.5)
 - `min_samples_leaf`: minimum samples or observation in each leaf (1, 5, 10)

- `n_estimators`: number of trees (set to 200)

- XGBoost:

- `max_depth`: depth of each tree (4,6,8)
- `learning_rate`: shrinkage per step (0.05, 0.1, 0.5)
- `reg_lambda`: L2 regularization (0.1, 1, 10)
- `reg_alpha`: L1 regularization (0, 0.1, 1)
- `n_estimators`: number of trees (set to 200)

Here are the best hyperaparmeter combinations found for each model:

- Random Forest:
 - `max_features`: 'sqrt'
 - `min_samples_leaf`: 10
 - `n_estimators`: 200

- XGBoost:

- `max_depth`: 6
- `learning_rate`: 0.05
- `reg_lambda`: 1
- `reg_alpha`: 0.1
- `n_estimators`: 200

An object of that type is instantiated for each grid point.
This is assumed to implement the scikit-learn estimator interface.
Either estimator needs to provide a “score” function,
or “scoring” must be passed.
param_distributions param_distributions: dict or list of dicts

```
{'max_features': ['sqrt',
0.3333333333333333, ...],
'min_samples_leaf': [1, 5, ...]}
```

Dictionary with parameters names (‘str’) as keys and distributions
or lists of parameters to try. Distributions must provide a “rvs”
method for sampling (such as those from `scipy.stats.distributions`).
If a list is given, it is sampled uniformly.
If a list of dicts is given, first a dict is sampled uniformly, and
then a parameter is sampled using that dict as above.

n_iter n_iter: int, default=10 10

Number of parameter settings that are sampled. n_iter trades
off runtime vs quality of the solution.
scoring scoring: str, callable, list, tuple or dict, default=None 'roc_auc'

Strategy to evaluate the performance of the cross-validated model on the test set.

If ‘scoring’ represents a single score, one can use:

- a single string (see :ref:‘scoring_string_names’);
- a callable (see :ref:‘scoring_callable’) that returns a single value;
- ‘None’, the ‘estimator’s :ref:‘default evaluation criterion ‘ is used.

If ‘scoring’ represents multiple scores, one can use:

- a list or tuple of unique strings;
- a callable returning a dictionary where the keys are the metric names and the values are the metric scores;
- a dictionary with metric names as keys and callables as values.

See :ref:‘multimetric_grid_search’ for an example.

If None, the estimator’s score method is used.

Number of jobs to run in parallel.
 “None“ means 1 unless in a
 :obj:‘joblib.parallel_backend‘ context.
 “-1“ means using all processors. See
 :term:‘Glossary ‘
 for more details.

.. versionchanged:: v0.20
 ‘n_jobs‘ default changed from 1 to None
 refit refit: bool, str, or callable, True
 default=True

Refit an estimator using the best found
 parameters on the whole
 dataset.

For multiple metric evaluation, this needs
 to be a ‘str‘ denoting the
 scorer that would be used to find the best
 parameters for refitting
 the estimator at the end.

Where there are considerations other than
 maximum score in
 choosing a best estimator, “refit“ can be
 set to a function which
 returns the selected “best_index_“ given
 the “cv_results_“. In that
 case, the “best_estimator_“ and
 “best_params_“ will be set
 according to the returned “best_index_“
 while the “best_score_“
 attribute will not be available.

The refitted estimator is made available at
 the “best_estimator_“
 attribute and permits using “predict“
 directly on this
 “RandomizedSearchCV“ instance.

Also for multiple metric evaluation, the
 attributes “best_index_“,
 “best_score_“ and “best_params_“ will
 only be available if
 “refit“ is set and all of them will be
 determined w.r.t this specific
 scorer.

See “scoring“ parameter to know more
 about multiple metric
 evaluation.

See :ref:‘this example
 ‘
 for an example of how to use
 “refit=callable“ to balance model
 complexity and cross-validated score.

.. versionchanged:: 0.20
 Support for callable added.

cv cv: int, cross-validation generator or an iterable, default=None 5

Determines the cross-validation splitting strategy.

Possible inputs for cv are:

- None, to use the default 5-fold cross validation,
- integer, to specify the number of folds in a '(Stratified)KFold',
- :term:'CV splitter',
- An iterable yielding (train, test) splits as arrays of indices.

For integer/None inputs, if the estimator is a classifier and "y" is either binary or multiclass, :class:'StratifiedKFold' is used. In all other cases, :class:'KFold' is used. These splitters are instantiated with 'shuffle=False' so the splits will be the same across calls.

Refer :ref:'User Guide ' for the various cross-validation strategies that can be used here.

.. versionchanged:: 0.22
"cv" default value if None changed from 3-fold to 5-fold.
verbose verbose: int 0

Controls the verbosity: the higher, the more messages.

- >1 : the computation time for each fold and parameter candidate is displayed;
- >2 : the score is also displayed;
- >3 : the fold and candidate parameter indexes are also displayed together with the starting time of the computation.

pre_dispatch pre_dispatch: int, or str, '2*n_jobs'
default='2*n_jobs'

Controls the number of jobs that get dispatched during parallel execution. Reducing this number can be useful to avoid an explosion of memory consumption when more jobs get dispatched than CPUs can process. This parameter can be:

- None, in which case all the jobs are immediately created and spawned. Use this for lightweight and fast-running jobs, to avoid delays due to on-demand spawning of the jobs
- An int, giving the exact number of total jobs that are spawned
- A str, giving an expression as a function of n_jobs, as in '2*n_jobs'

random_state random_state: int, RandomState instance or None, default=None

Pseudo random number generator state used for random uniform sampling from lists of possible values instead of scipy.stats distributions.
Pass an int for reproducible output across multiple function calls.
See :term:'Glossary ' .
error_score error_score: 'raise' or numeric, nan
default=np.nan

Value to assign to the score if an error occurs in estimator fitting.
If set to 'raise', the error is raised. If a numeric value is given, FitFailedWarning is raised. This parameter does not affect the refit step, which will always raise the error.

<code>return_train_score</code> <code>return_train_score</code> : bool, default=False	False
If “False“, the “<code>cv_results_</code>“ attribute will not include training scores. Computing training scores is used to get insights on how different parameter settings impact the overfitting/underfitting trade-off. However computing the scores on the training set can be computationally expensive and is not strictly required to select the parameters that yield the best generalization performance.	
.. versionadded:: 0.19	
.. versionchanged:: 0.21 Default value was changed from “True“ to “False“	
<code>n_estimators</code> <code>n_estimators</code> : int, default=100	200
The number of trees in the forest.	
.. versionchanged:: 0.22 The default value of “<code>n_estimators</code>“ changed from 10 to 100 in 0.22. <code>criterion</code> <code>criterion</code>: {“gini“, “entropy“, “log_loss”}, default=“gini”	‘gini’
The function to measure the quality of a split. Supported criteria are “gini” for the Gini impurity and “log_loss” and “entropy” both for the Shannon information gain, see :ref:‘tree_mathematical_formulation’. Note: This parameter is tree-specific. <code>max_depth</code> <code>max_depth</code>: int, default=None	None
The maximum depth of the tree. If None, then nodes are expanded until all leaves are pure or until all leaves contain less than <code>min_samples_split</code> samples.	

`min_samples_split min_samples_split:` 2
`int or float, default=2`

The minimum number of samples required to split an internal node:

- If int, then consider ‘`min_samples_split`’ as the minimum number.
- If float, then ‘`min_samples_split`’ is a fraction and ‘`ceil(min_samples_split * n_samples)`’ are the minimum number of samples for each split.

.. versionchanged:: 0.18

Added float values for fractions.

`min_samples_leaf min_samples_leaf: int` 10
`or float, default=1`

The minimum number of samples required to be at a leaf node.

A split point at any depth will only be considered if it leaves at least “`min_samples_leaf`” training samples in each of the left and right branches. This may have the effect of smoothing the model, especially in regression.

- If int, then consider ‘`min_samples_leaf`’ as the minimum number.
- If float, then ‘`min_samples_leaf`’ is a fraction and ‘`ceil(min_samples_leaf * n_samples)`’ are the minimum number of samples for each node.

.. versionchanged:: 0.18

Added float values for fractions.

`min_weight_fraction_leaf` 0.0
`min_weight_fraction_leaf: float,`
`default=0.0`

The minimum weighted fraction of the sum total of weights (of all the input samples) required to be at a leaf node. Samples have equal weight when `sample_weight` is not provided.

`max_features` `max_features`: {"sqrt",
"log2", None}, int or float, default="sqrt" 'sqrt'

The number of features to consider when looking for the best split:

- If int, then consider 'max_features' features at each split.
- If float, then 'max_features' is a fraction and
'max(1, int(max_features * n_features_in_))' features are considered at each split.
- If "sqrt", then
'max_features=sqrt(n_features)'.
- If "log2", then
'max_features=log2(n_features)'.
- If None, then 'max_features=n_features'.

.. versionchanged:: 1.1

The default of 'max_features' changed from "auto" to "sqrt".

Note: the search for a split does not stop until at least one valid partition of the node samples is found, even if it requires to effectively inspect more than "max_features" features.

`max_leaf_nodes` `max_leaf_nodes`: int, default=None None

Grow trees with "max_leaf_nodes" in best-first fashion.

Best nodes are defined as relative reduction in impurity.

If None then unlimited number of leaf nodes.

`min_impurity_decrease` 0.0
`min_impurity_decrease`: float,
default=0.0

A node will be split if this split induces a decrease of the impurity greater than or equal to this value.

The weighted impurity decrease equation is the following::

$$N_t / N * (\text{impurity} - N_{t_R} / N_t * \text{right_impurity} - N_{t_L} / N_t * \text{left_impurity})$$

where “N” is the total number of samples, “N_t” is the number of samples at the current node, “N_t_L” is the number of samples in the left child, and “N_t_R” is the number of samples in the right child.

“N”, “N_t”, “N_t_R” and “N_t_L” all refer to the weighted sum, if “sample_weight” is passed.

.. versionadded:: 0.19
`bootstrap` `bootstrap`: bool, default=True True

Whether bootstrap samples are used when building trees. If False, the whole dataset is used to build each tree.
`oob_score` `oob_score`: bool or callable, default=False False

Whether to use out-of-bag samples to estimate the generalization score.
By default,
:func:~sklearn.metrics.accuracy_score' is used.
Provide a callable with signature
'metric(y_true, y_pred)' to use a custom metric. Only available if
'bootstrap=True'.

For an illustration of out-of-bag (OOB) error estimation, see the example
:ref:'sphx_glr_auto_examples_ensemble_plot_ensemble_oob.py'.
`n_jobs` `n_jobs`: int, default=None 1

The number of jobs to run in parallel.
:meth:'fit', :meth:'predict',
:meth:'decision_path' and :meth:'apply'
are all parallelized over the
trees. “None” means 1 unless in a
:obj:'joblib.parallel_backend'
context. “-1” means using all processors.
See :term:'Glossary'
' for more details.

random_state random_state: int, 65
RandomState instance or None,
default=None

Controls both the randomness of the
bootstrapping of the samples used
when building trees (if “bootstrap=True”) and the sampling of the
features to consider when looking for the
best split at each node
(if “max_features < n_features”).
See :term:‘Glossary ‘ for details.
verbose verbose: int, default=0 0

Controls the verbosity when fitting and
predicting.
warm_start warm_start: bool, False
default=False

When set to “True”, reuse the solution of
the previous call to fit
and add more estimators to the ensemble,
otherwise, just fit a whole
new forest. See :term:‘Glossary ‘ and
:ref:‘tree_ensemble_warm_start‘ for
details.

`class_weight` `class_weight`: {"balanced", "balanced_subsample"}, dict or list of dicts, default=None

Weights associated with classes in the form {"class_label": weight}.

If not given, all classes are supposed to have weight one. For multi-output problems, a list of dicts can be provided in the same order as the columns of `y`.

Note that for multioutput (including multilabel) weights should be defined for each class of every column in its own dict. For example, for four-class multilabel classification weights should be [{0: 1, 1: 1}, {0: 1, 1: 5}, {0: 1, 1: 1}, {0: 1, 1: 1}] instead of [{1:1}, {2:5}, {3:1}, {4:1}].

The "balanced" mode uses the values of `y` to automatically adjust weights inversely proportional to class frequencies in the input data as " $\text{n_samples} / (\text{n_classes} * \text{np.bincount}(y))$ ".

The "balanced_subsample" mode is the same as "balanced" except that weights are computed based on the bootstrap sample for every tree grown.

For multi-output, the weights of each column of `y` will be multiplied.

Note that these weights will be multiplied with `sample_weight` (passed through the fit method) if `sample_weight` is specified.

`ccp_alpha` `ccp_alpha`: non-negative float, default=0.0

Complexity parameter used for Minimal Cost-Complexity Pruning. The subtree with the largest cost complexity that is smaller than "`ccp_alpha`" will be chosen. By default, no pruning is performed. See :ref:'minimal_cost_complexity_pruning' for details. See :ref:'sphx_glr_auto_examples_tree_plot_cost_complexity_pruning.py' for an example of such pruning.

.. versionadded:: 0.22

	<code>max_samples</code> <code>max_samples</code>: int or float, default=None If <code>bootstrap</code> is True, the number of samples to draw from X to train each base estimator. - If None (default), then draw <code>'X.shape[0]'</code> samples. - If int, then draw <code>'max_samples'</code> samples. - If float, then draw <code>'max(round(n_samples * max_samples), 1)'</code> samples. Thus, <code>'max_samples'</code> should be in the interval <code>'(0.0, 1.0]'</code>. .. versionadded:: 0.22 <code>monotonic_cst</code> <code>monotonic_cst</code>: array-like of int of shape (n_features), default=None Indicates the monotonicity constraint to enforce on each feature. - 1: monotonic increase - 0: no constraint - -1: monotonic decrease If <code>monotonic_cst</code> is None, no constraints are applied. Monotonicity constraints are not supported for: - multiclass classifications (i.e. when <code>'n_classes > 2'</code>), - multioutput classifications (i.e. when <code>'n_outputs_ > 1'</code>), - classifications trained on data with missing values. The constraints hold over the probability of the positive class. Read more in the :ref:'User Guide '. .. versionadded:: 1.4	None
--	--	------

Fitting 5 folds for each of 10 candidates, totalling 50 fits

Model Evaluation

After the models were rebuild with the best combinations of hyperparameter above and fit on the training data, the models were ran on the test data and their performance are evaluated using: - Accuracy: represents the model’s ability to predict wins correctly - F1-Score: represents the model’s ability to balance precision and recall - ROC-AUC: represents the model’s performance in distinguishing a win or loss across all thresholds

Model	Test Accuracy	Misclassification Error	F1 Score	AUC
Random Forest	0.698	0.302	0.742	0.771
XGBoost	0.693	0.307	0.739	0.758

Table 5: Model Performance Comparison

RESULTS

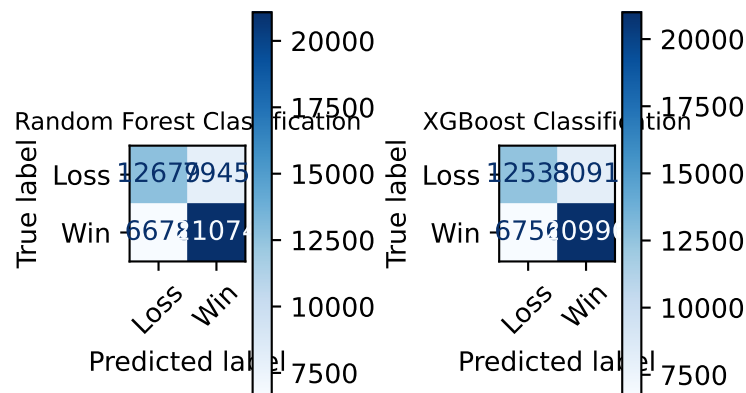


Figure 5: Confusion Matrices of Models The Confusion Matrices shows diagonals shows the accuracy of both models. With greater proportion of the prediction (indicated by both the larger numbers and the darker shade of blue) lies at the true values (Predicted Win & True Win, Predicted Loss & True Loss). Notice that False Positives and False Negatives counts are significantly smaller than the True values, suggesting the high accuracy in the both models.

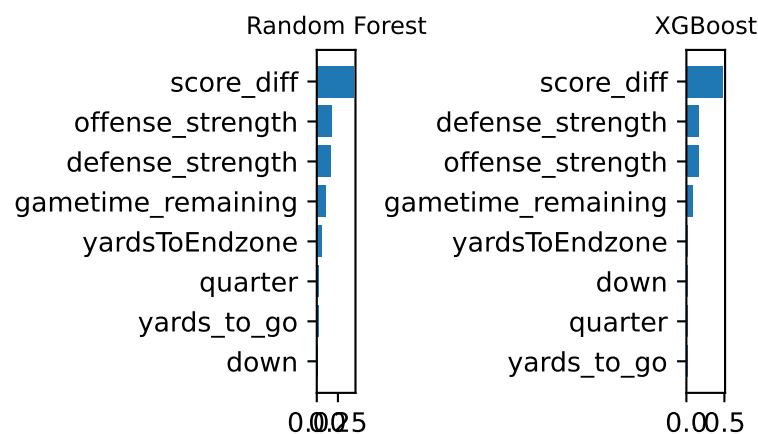


Figure 6: Feature Importance Graphs of Models The Feature Importance Graphs highlights the top most influential features for each model. We see both models have score difference as the more dominant variable, followed by team strengths then remaining game time. This shows that not only does game statistics influence the model, but also each team’s relative strengths contributes meaningfully.

The final selected model is the Random Forest Classifier as it has a higher accuracy (0.698 vs 0.693) along with a higher F1-score (0.742 vs 0.739), indicating better balance between percision and recall, as well as higher AUC score (0.77 vs 0.76), making it more reliable in predicting both win and loss resutls.

With Random Forest Classifier as our model, we set a specific game, the “NFL 2024 game of the San Francisco 49ers vs the Washington Commanders” to provide an example of how our model could provide valuable insights.

Figure A, the plot shows how win probability of the home team (in this case, the Commanders) evovles throughout the game. At the start of the game (right hand side of the graph), the win probability is around 0.6 which is reasonable as we know that team strength affects the prediction quite significantly. As the game progresses, game state (e.g. score difference, field positions) changes and those changes influences the model’s prediction which is reflected in the fluctuation of the graph. Towards the end of the game (closer to gametime_remaning = 0) the win probability shifts to a more extreme value (0 or 1, in this case 0). This reflects a game state with a significant score difference of -17, limited time remaining and field position far away from the end zone (difficult to score a touchdown or a field goal), indicating there isn’t much chances for the Commanders to possibly win at that game state.

Figure B highlights the difference in distribution of predicted win probabilities among the different quarters. In the early quarters, win probabilities centers around 0.6, reflecting high uncertainty due to ample remaining time. As the game progresses, the distribution spreads out in third quarter (a more uniform distribution). Another apprant insight is how the win probabiltiy in the fourth quarter concentrates in the two extreme values of 0 and 1, indicating increased certainty in game outcome as it gets closer to the end of the game and score differences becomes more influential.

Figure C illustrates the relationship between win probabiltiy and gametime remaining, highlighting the role of team’s strength difference. At the early stages of the game, there are more extreme colour (purple or yellow) points towards the extreme values of 0 or 1, suggesting how the magnitude in strength difference influences the prediction of win probability. As the game progresses, the

different colour points evens out, indicating that team strength difference doesn't influence the win probability as much as early in the game.

CONCLUSION & SUMMARY

This project has developed a Random Forest Classifier Model that predicts whether a home team will win an NFL game given the game state, and outputs the win probability at that point of the game. The most influential features leveraged by the model are score difference, team strengths and game time remaining, as well as other less dominant features like field position also contribute in predicting the win probability.

The results show that the model is able to produce meaningful and interpretable insights. For example, given a game state with significant negative score difference, limited time remaining and poor field position, the chances of winning are low and thus teams can take more risky plays to attempt to even out the score.

During model building, we also learn that a Random Forest Classifier performs slightly better than the XGBoost (by comparing the accuracy, F1-score and ROC-AUC). Hence, Random Forest Classifier was chosen as our final model with an accuracy of approximately 70%.

However, there are several limitations to this method. First, the model doesn't consider player statistics or whether they are playing or not, which can affect the offense or defense strength values, thus impacting game outcome. Besides that, the model doesn't consider team performance against specific opponents, and there is no distinction between the offense and defense strengths beyond the overall strength value.

Further improvements would include adding more features such as players conditions, importing more historical data to capture team performance against specific teams and differentiating offense and defense strengths.

To summarize, this project shows that machine learning models can effectively estimate win probability in NFL games using conditions of the game. These findings can be valuable for understanding game dynamics and supporting decision-making in sports analytics, while also providing a foundation for future improvements.